

Some **non-equivalences** (inequivalence)

$$\begin{aligned}\exists x (P(x) \wedge Q(x)) &\not\equiv \exists x P(x) \wedge \exists x Q(x), \\ \forall x (P(x) \vee Q(x)) &\not\equiv \forall x P(x) \vee \forall x Q(x).\end{aligned}$$

Hint: It is enough to think of x in $\{1, 2\}$.

4 propositions in total: $P(1)$, $P(2)$, $Q(1)$ and $Q(2)$.

We find one case where LHS and RHS have different truth values.

By trial-and-error, we find: $P(1) = T$, $P(2) = F$, $Q(1) = F$, $Q(2) = T$.

$$\begin{aligned}\text{LHS} &= \exists x (P(x) \wedge Q(x)) = (P(1) \wedge Q(1)) \vee (P(2) \wedge Q(2)) \\ &= (T \text{ and } F) \text{ or } (F \text{ and } T) = F \text{ or } F = F.\end{aligned}$$

$$\begin{aligned}\text{RHS} &= \exists x P(x) \wedge \exists x Q(x) = (P(1) \vee P(2)) \wedge (Q(1) \vee Q(2)) \\ &= (T \text{ or } F) \text{ and } (F \text{ or } T) = T \text{ and } T = T.\end{aligned}$$

In this case, LHS and RHS have different truth values,
so LHS is not equal to the RHS.

De Morgan's laws for quantifiers.

$$\begin{aligned}\neg(\forall x P(x)) &\equiv \exists x \neg P(x), \\ \neg(\exists x P(x)) &\equiv \forall x \neg P(x).\end{aligned}$$

Again, think of the finite domain case: $D = \{1,2\}$
Two propositions: $P(1), P(2)$

LHS = not (forall x , $P(x)$) = not($P(1)$ and $P(2)$)
= not $P(1)$ or not $P(2)$ (De Morgan's law)
= thereexists x , not $P(x)$
= RHS.

Remark. It applies to the infinite domain case too.

1.5 Nested Quantifiers

Example.

x in $\mathcal{D}_1 = \{\text{students in University A}\},$
 y in $\mathcal{D}_2 = \{\text{students in University B}\},$ where $B \neq A,$

$$F(x, y) = (x \text{ and } y \text{ are friends}).$$

- “ $\forall x \forall y F(x, y)$ ” means

Forall x in Univ A and for all y in Univ B, x and y are friends.

This means: Any student in Univ A is a friend to all/every students in B.

The proposition “forall x forall y , $F(x, y)$ ” is (almost 100%) F..

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- “ $\forall x \forall y F(x, y)$ ” means

- “ $\exists x \exists y F(x, y)$ ” means

Thereexists x in Univ A and thereexists y in Univ B,
 x and y are friends.

This means: We can find (at least) one student x in Univ A, and
find another in Univ B, such that x and y are friends.

The proposition “thereexists x thereexists $y, F(x, y)$ ” is (very likely) T.

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Example

- “ $\forall x, \forall y$ in $\mathcal{D} = \{\text{real numbers}\}, (x + y = y + x)$ ”
commutative law for addition.

The Order of Quantifiers

$$\forall x \forall y, P(x, y) \equiv \forall y \forall x, P(x, y),$$

$$\exists x \exists y, P(x, y) \equiv \exists y \exists x, P(x, y),$$

but

$$\forall x, \exists y, P(x, y) \not\equiv \exists y, \forall x, P(x, y).$$

Example. x and y are two students in XMUM, and $P(x, y)$: (x and y have a common course).

- $\forall x, \exists y, P(x, y)$ means

For any student x in XMUM, they can find another student y (a classmate for x) such that they have a common course.

“For all x , there exists y , $P(x, y)$ ” is T

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Example. x and y are two students in XMUM, and $P(x, y)$: (x and y have a common course).

- $\forall x, \exists y, P(x, y)$ means

- $\exists x, \forall y, P(x, y)$ means

There is one (very special, maybe too special) student in XMUM, where he/she has a common course to every student in XMUM.

“There exists x , for all y , $P(x, y)$ ” is F.

Remember

When $\forall$ and $\exists$ are nested together, the order is important.

Example

- $\forall x \exists y (x + y = 0)$

For any number x (given), we can find another number y (depending on the given number x) such that $x + y = 0$.

We can write y in terms of x , in this case $y = -x$.

- $\exists x \forall y (x + y = 0)$

There exists a number x (fixed), such that $x + y = 0$ for any value y (random).
No such number x exists, so the statement is F.

Example: $\exists x \forall y (xy = 0)$

Find/solve for one x such that ($xy = 0$ for any choice of y).

This time x exists, which is 0.